

Introduction to Computer Programming

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Functions

More code does not necessarily mean good practice → use **functions**.

Why?

- functions are **reusable** chunks of code
- functions run if and only if are “**called**” or “**invoked**”

Characteristics of a function:

- functions have a **name**
- functions have (0 or more) **parameters**
- functions have a **docstring**¹
- functions have a **body**
- functions return **something**.

¹Optional, but recommended

```
def is_even(i):  
    """  
    Input: i, a positive int  
    Returns True if i is even, otherwise False  
    """  
    print("inside is_even")  
    return i%2 == 0  
  
is_even(3)
```

keyword

name

parameters or arguments

specification, docstring

body

later in the code, you call the function using its name and values for parameters

Figure 1: Anatomy of a function.

The importance of `return`:

```
def is_even( i ):  
    """  
    Input: i, a positive int  
    Does not return anything  
    """  
    i%2 == 0
```

*without a return
statement*

What happens when running e.g.

```
n=is_even(2)
```

- Python returns `None` if no `return` is given
- `None` represents the absence of a value

print

- can be placed **anywhere** (inside and/or outside functions)
- as **many** print statements as you want
- code **after** print statements is executed inside a function
- has a value associated to it, **outputted** to the console

return

- has a meaning only **inside** a function
- only **one** return statement inside a function
- code **after** return statement is not executed
- has a value associated to it, **returned** to the function caller

The **return** statement can return multiple values (if needed):

- list of values separated by commas
- returns a tuple²

Example:

```
def hms(nsec):
    """Takes nsec (n. of seconds) and splits in hours, minutes, seconds"""
    hh = nsec // 3600
    nsec = nsec % 3600
    mm = nsec // 60
    ss = nsec % 60
    return hh, mm, ss

print(hms(4000))
# Out: (1, 6, 40)
print(hms(100000))
# Out: (27, 46, 40)
```

²We will see tuples later in the course, for now we just print multiple outputs.

Variable Scope

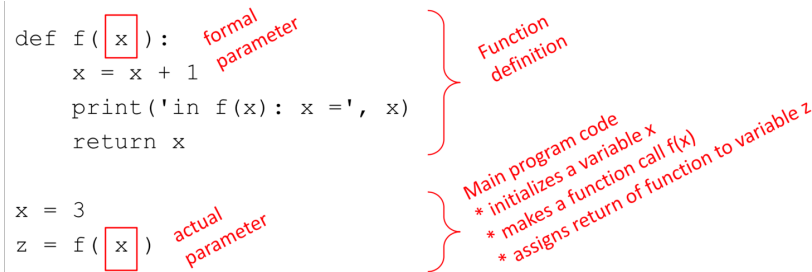


Figure 3: Variable scope (inside/outside function).

- the **formal parameter** gets bound to the **actual parameter** when the function is called
- when entering a function, a new **scope** (or **frame**, or **environment**) is created
- the **scope** is the mapping of names to objects


```
def f( x ):
    x = x + 1
    print('in f(x): x =', x)
    return x

x = 3
z = f( x )
```

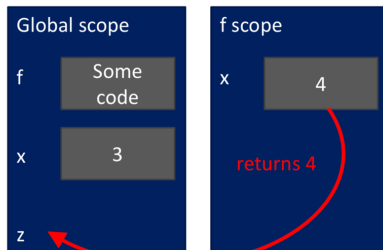


Figure 6: Step 3 of 4.

What's going on here?

- ① variable **x** inside **f** is ready to be **returned**
- ② in the main scope, there is variable **z** ready to host the **returned** value

Important Caveats on Variable Scopes

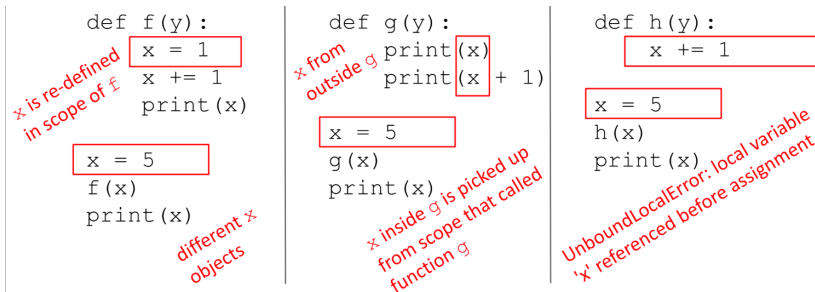


Figure 8: Important caveats (pt.1).

- inside a function, you **can access** variables defined outside the function itself
- inside a function, you **cannot modify** variables defined outside the function itself
- to modify variables defined outside, you must use the `global` keyword ... which is frowned upon

Important Caveats on Variable Scopes

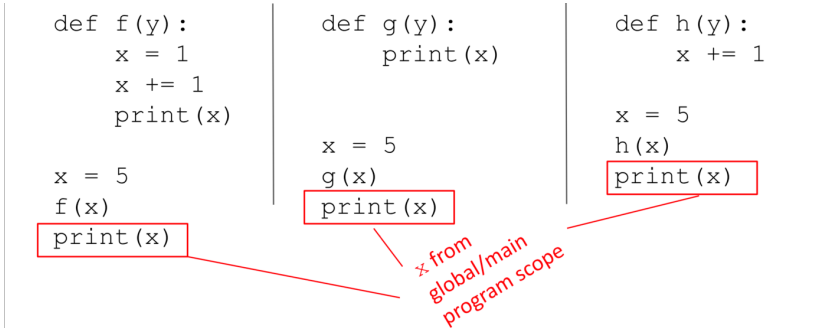


Figure 9: Important caveats (pt.2).

- due to the fact that (by default) you cannot modify variables inside a function, `x` remains untouched

- when we create a variable **inside** a function, it is **local** by default
- when we create a variable **outside** a function, it is **global** by default: no need to use the **global** keyword
- using the **global** keyword outside a function has no effect
- we use the **global** keyword to *write/modify* a variable **inside** a function

```
c=0 # global variable
```

```
def add():
    global c
    c = c + 2 # increment by 2
    print("Inside add(): c = ", c)
```

```
add()
print("In main(): c = ", c)
```

- you can **nest** functions arbitrarily
- scopes of nested functions behave like Matryoshka dolls
- let's see how thanks to PythonTutor
<http://pythontutor.com/>

```
def g(x):
    def h():
        x = 'abc'
    x = x + 1
    print('g: x =', x)
    h()
    return x
```

$$\begin{aligned}x &= 3 \\z &= g(x)\end{aligned}$$

Positional vs. Keyword Arguments

We have seen **positional bounding** of formal parameters to actual parameters:

- the first formal parameter is bound to the first actual parameter
- the second formal to the second actual
- ... and so on, until all parameters are bounded

Python also supports keyword bounding

- formals are bound to actuals using the name of the formal parameter

Example:

```
def add(a, b, c):
    return a + b + c
```

```
add(1,2,3)      # positional bounding a→1, b→2, c→3
add(c=3, a=1, b=2) # keyword bounding (order does not matter)
```

All parameters need to be provided to a function:

- via positional or keyword arguments
- via default parameters

Example:

```
def area_cylinder(radius=1, height=1):
```

```
    pi = 3.14
```

```
    bottom_area = pi * radius ** 2
```

```
    side_area = pi * height * radius * 2
```

```
    return side_area + bottom_area * 2
```

```
print("No parameters: ", area_cylinder(), "\n")
```

```
print("One parameter: ", area_cylinder(2))
```

```
print("Check: ", area_cylinder(2, 1), "\n")
```

```
print("Two parameters: ", area_cylinder(2, 3), "\n")
```

```
print("Specific parameters: ", area_cylinder(height=2))
```

```
print("Check: ", area_cylinder(1, 2), "\n")
```

Built-in Functions

Python implements many functions by default, which are called **built-in functions**.

Examples of built-in functions:

- numerical functions, such as `round(x)` and `pow(x,y)`³
- casting, such as `int(x)`, `float(x)` and `str(x)`
- input and output, namely `input()` and `print()`
- help function, namely `help()`⁴

Related functions are grouped into files, called **modules**.

³Which is another way of doing exponentiation: `pow(x,y)` is the same as `x**y`.

⁴The `help()` function takes as input the name of a function and returns its docstring.

Modules

Modular programming is the way of breaking a large, unwieldy programming task into separate, smaller (and more manageable) subtasks.

A **module** is a piece of software with a specific functionality. For example, a game (e.g., chess, ping-pong, ...):

- a module responsible for the game logic (rules)
- a module responsible for graphics

In Python, each module is a Python file with a `.py` extension, yet other extensions are also possible (e.g., pre-compiled `C++`).

Modules contain some Python code (e.g., functions, class definitions, ...).

An example: the `random` module.

random.py

```
def sample(...):
    """Chooses k unique random elements from a population..."""
    some code
    some code

def randint(...):
    """Return random integer in range [a, b], including both end points."""
    some code
    some code

def random(...):
    """Get the next random number in the range [0.0, 1.0)."""
    some code
    some code
```

Modules are **imported** (in your script, in your function or in other modules) using the **import** command.

You can use two different strategies for using a specific function from that module.

① using the `<module>.<function>` notation

```
>>> import random           → or any other module
>>> print(random.randint(1, 100)) → or any other function
65                             → your result might vary
```

② using the `from` command

```
>>> from random import randint → or any other function
>>> print(randint(1, 100))
65                             → your result might vary
```

Warning

Strategy #2 does not need the dot-notation (see Strategy #1). Yet, it only loads a specific function in your main!

Python comes with many modules, including:

- `io` read and write from files
- `math` mathematical functions
- `random` pseudo-random number generator
- `string` useful string functions
- `sys` information about your operating system

You can find the full list here:

<https://docs.python.org/3/library/>

An example: the **math** module:

- Number-theoretic and representation functions
- Power and logarithmic functions
- Trigonometric functions
- Angular conversion
- Hyperbolic functions
- Special functions and constants

```
>>> import math
>>> print(math.factorial(x))    # return x!
>>> print(math.log2(x))        # return the base-2 logarithm of x
>>> print(math.cos(math.pi))   # return the cosine of  $\pi$ 
>>> print(math.gcd(x,y))       # return the greatest common divisor
```

You can find the full list here:

<https://docs.python.org/3/library/math.html>

You can browse the contents of a module interactively via the `dir()` function.

```
>>> import math
>>> print(dir(math))
['__doc__', '__file__', '__loader__', '__name__', '__package__',
 '__spec__', 'acos', 'acosh', 'asin', 'asinh', 'atan', 'atan2', 'atanh', 'ceil',
 'comb', 'copysign', 'cos', 'cosh', 'degrees', 'dist', 'e', 'erf', 'erfc', 'exp', 'expm1',
 'fabs', 'factorial', 'floor', 'fmod', 'frexp', 'fsum', 'gamma', 'gcd', 'hypot',
 'inf', 'isclose', 'isfinite', 'isinf', 'isnan', 'isqrt', 'lcm', 'ldexp', 'lgamma',
 'log', 'log10', 'log1p', 'log2', 'modf', 'nan', 'nextafter', 'perm', 'pi', 'pow',
 'prod', 'radians', 'remainder', 'sin', 'sinh', 'sqrt', 'tan', 'tanh',
 'tau', 'trunc', 'ulp']
```

Note

Items beginning/ending with `'__'` are some metadata files. You can safely ignore them. For example, `'__file__'` contains the path pointing to the module source file.

Given a list of functions, you can browse their documentation via the `help()` function.

Recall

The `help()` function takes as input the name of a function and returns its docstring.

```
>>> import math
```

```
>>> help(math.log)
```

Help on built-in function log in module math:

```
log(...)
```

```
log(x, [base=math.e])
```

If the base not specified, returns the natural logarithm (base e) of x.

(END)

References

- Guttag, J. V. (2013). *Introduction to Computation and Programming using Python (Revised and Expanded Edition)*. MIT Press. [Chapter 4]
- Downey, A. (2015). *Think Python*. Green Tea Press ed. 2nd. [Chapter 3]

Acknowledgments